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LOCAL VISIONS,
TRANSCENDENTAL
PRACTICES:
ICONOGRAPHIC
INNOVATIONS OF
INDIAN ESOTERIC
BUDDHISM

The proliferation of an amazing array of gods and goddesses is one of the main characteristics of Esoteric or Tantric Buddhism.¹ As seen in the complex manifestations of Esoteric Buddhist deities like Hevajra and Sambara, these gods are often fantastic and frightening in their appearance (fig. 1). Many incorporate not only the elements of movements invoked through multiple arms, active stance, and flame but also the terrifying qualities of bloodthirstiness and death often represented by garlands of severed heads, skull cups filled with blood, and animal hides. From the popular Western perception of Buddhism as a religion of meditation and philosophical pursuits, it may even be difficult to consider some of these images as belonging to a Buddhist tradition. It is no wonder that early writers of the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries characterized Esoteric Buddhist iconography and Indian Esoteric Buddhism in general as corrupt, degenerate manifestations of the Buddhist

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¹ I take *tantric* and *Esoteric* as interchangeable terms. *Esoteric* denotes this tradition's adherence to the secrecy of transmission of the teaching from a guru (preceptor) to an initiated disciple, while *tantric* has a clear reference to the class of texts, i.e., *tantra*, that are associated with this school of Buddhism. To emphasize the aspects of ritual practices associated with this tradition, I use "Esoteric Buddhism" throughout this study.



FIG. 1.—Hevajra, fol. 161v, right panel, AsP ms., Lakṣmaṇasena's forty-seventh year (ca. 1226 CE), Bharat Kala Bhavan, Banaras Hindu University (BHU), Varanasi, no. 4912. Photo by author. Image courtesy of Bharat Kala Bhavan, BHU.

religion.² However, the violent and often interactive Esoteric Buddhist iconography is not the embodiment of the grotesque. Rather, it is an efficient visual strategy for invoking and embodying the doctrinal values of the great tradition, including the core Mahāyana doctrine of emptiness (*śūnyatā*).³ Approaching Esoteric Buddhist iconography as visual strategies allows us to consider different sets of questions than have been posed previously: questions regarding the historical process behind the development of Esoteric Buddhist iconography, and those regarding the sociopolitical function and the religious meaning of the iconography in the context of production and use of the images.

I propose to consider the proliferation of Esoteric Buddhist iconography as a historical process that reflects the development of localized cults and the increased importance of personal visions.⁴ Inclusion of the local, personal

² See, e.g., Benoytosh Bhattacharyya, introduction to *Sādhanaṁālā*, 2 vols., Gaekwad's Oriental Series (Baroda: Central Library, 1925–28), 2:xxii–xxxiii.

³ As Sanderson and Isaacson assert, the Esoteric Buddhist tradition adheres to the doctrinal values of Mahāyana Buddhism and differs from it mainly in its means (*upāya*); see Harunaga Isaacson, "Tantric Buddhism in India (from ca. AD 800 to ca. AD 1200)," *Buddhismus in Geschichte und Gegenwart* 2 (1998), 23–49; Alexis Sanderson, "Vajrayāna: Origin and Function," in *Buddhism into the Year 2000*, ed. Dhammakaya Foundation (Bangkok: Dhammakaya Foundation, 1994), 87–102.

⁴ The Buddhist vision practices that I refer to in this essay are centered around seeing through mind as implied in the verb $\sqrt{\text{dhyai}}$, often "to meditate," in *sādhana* texts. They are strategies not just of seeing but of seeing (*dr̥ṣṭa*) to become one (as in *bhāvayet*, from $\sqrt{\text{bhū}}$) with the one seen. Seeing (another verb used in this regard is $\sqrt{\text{paś}}$) happens before becoming, and this process of identifying with the divine is enhanced through sound, i.e., utterance of the prescribed *mantra*, at the end of the process. Although clearly beyond the scope of this essay, close reading of the

visions in transregional, geographically Pan-Indic scale projects as seen in the iconographic programs of the two eleventh-century Nepalese manuscripts and their twelfth-century eastern Indian copies mirrors the ideal process of Esoteric Buddhist practices in which the transformation of an individual to the transcendental is pursued. By identifying the historical characteristics of Esoteric Buddhist iconography of the eleventh through the twelfth centuries as a creative historical process, we can begin to locate the Esoteric Buddhist tradition in the larger medieval Indic religious landscape in which we see the gradual emergence of local cultic centers as Pan-Indian pilgrimage sites, which coincides with the development of transregional political rhetoric in the growth of regional dynastic houses.⁵

Here, I bring together two types of sources, one visual and the other textual, that were made available during the initial stage of the study of Esoteric Buddhist iconography: first, the painted panels in the two Nepalese illustrated manuscripts of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra of the eleventh century, which were the primary material for Alfred Foucher's (1865–1952) pioneering 1900 study of Buddhist iconography,⁶ and second, the Sanskrit ritual texts that describe the processes and the benefits of deity yoga (*ahamkāra*) compiled during the twelfth century, as in the *Sādhanaṃālā*, an edited Sanskrit text first

sādhana literature and surviving visual materials relating to the vision practices described in them may help us surmise an Indian Esoteric Buddhist theory of vision like the better understood medieval Islamic vision theories concerned with understanding the role of optics, lights, and anatomy of eyes, owing much to the Greek thinkers. In terms of practice, a close parallel may be drawn from looking at medieval Sufi practices and medieval Christian devotional practices. On medieval Islamic vision theories, see, e.g., Jamal J. Elias, *Aisha's Cushion: Religious Art, Perception, and Practice in Islam* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2012), 188–215.

⁵ See, e.g., Ronald M. Davidson's discussion of the historical corelationship between the "samanta-feudalism" in post-Gupta India and the hierarchical nature of the tenets of Esoteric Buddhism: *Indian Esoteric Buddhism: A Social History of the Tantric Movement* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2002), 50–51. This phenomenon can also be compared to the rise of the vernacular languages and local/regional literary practices as powerful epistemological tools in the sociopolitical world of South Asia beginning at the turn of the first millennium as suggested by Sheldon Pollock, *The Language of the Gods in the World of Men: Sanskrit, Culture and Power in Premodern India* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2006). The full exploration of this historical process is clearly beyond the scope of the current study, but it is hoped that the methodology pursued here can widen the horizon of our inquiry into the history of medieval Indian Esoteric Buddhist art and practices.

⁶ Alfred Foucher, *Étude sur l'iconographie bouddhique de l'Inde d'après des documents nouveaux*, vol. 1 (Paris: Leroux, 1900). As Janice Leoshko ("A Matter of Perspective in the Study of Buddhist Art," *Journal of Bengal Art* 2 [1997]: 79–98) points out, Foucher's pioneering study set unnecessary limits on the way in which subsequent generations of scholars approach Indian Esoteric Buddhist art. We should note that Foucher published sections of the *sādhana* texts collected in the manuscripts of the *Sādhanaśatapañcāśika* (Cambridge University Library Add. 1686, and Bibliothèque Nationale de France, Paris, ms. Dev. 123, current accession no. 152) and the *Sādhanaśamuccaya* (Cambridge University Library Add. 1648 and Add. 1593) in 1905, and the categorization of different Buddhist divinities seen in Foucher's two studies is followed in subsequent studies of the Buddhist pantheon, including those by Bhattacharyya; Alfred Foucher, *Étude sur l'iconographie bouddhique de l'Inde d'après des textes inédits*, vol. 2 (Paris: Leroux, 1905).

published in 1925–28.⁷ The two Nepalese manuscripts have been used as iconographic reference books since Foucher's publication in 1900 partly because the painted panels have accompanying captions identifying almost every panel, a unique feature among the medieval South Asian Buddhist manuscripts. The text of these painted manuscripts is that of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra, the well-known Mahāyāna sutra explicating the concept of *śūnyatā* ("void-ness," emptiness). The colorful painted images and sacred sites (*tīrthas*) presented in the manuscript seem to exist superfluous to the profound doctrinal text. Acknowledging this seeming discrepancy, Foucher freely reorganizes and rearranges the paintings in the manuscript as he sees fit as if the manuscript is a visual encyclopedia of Buddhist iconography. While he is surprisingly sensitive to contemporary contexts at Indian Buddhist sites, Foucher, like many others after him, fails to see the context of these paintings in a three-dimensional space of a book of the Buddhist book cult, which the Prajñāpāramitā sutra is, as much as it is a profound philosophical treatise.⁸ I suggest that the Nepalese manuscripts Foucher utilized are indeed prepared like a visual encyclopedia in their ambition and scope, but not in the sense of a reference book that we can randomly open to help us understand an image. I argue that the images are carefully selected and meaningfully placed in the context of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra, with specific cultic and political purposes, and it is in this material and historical context we can fully appreciate them as conveying specific visual strategies of Buddhist vision practices of the time.

Benoytosh Bhattacharyya (1897–1964) prepared an edited Sanskrit text of the *Sādhnamālā*, or the garland of *sādhana*s (literally, "conjuring up a deity," usually an instruction for a deity yoga, or *ahaṃkāra*), from the eight surviving manuscripts of varying dates.⁹ This was published in two volumes

⁷ Bhattacharyya, *Sādhnamālā*.

⁸ For more discussion on the text-image relationship in the manuscripts of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra in the context of the Buddhist book cult, see Jinah Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred: Illustrated Manuscripts and the Buddhist Book-Cult in South Asia* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2013).

⁹ The earliest of these manuscripts is dated N.S. 285 (1165 CE) (Cambridge University Library Add. 1686). While the paleographic features of this palm leaf manuscript bear out the twelfth-century date, it is important to note that the date appears in the middle of this incomplete manuscript at the end of a *sādhana*. It reads, "*sthīracakrasādhanaṃsamāptam|| saṃ 285 pauṣyamāṣeti||*~." Codicologically speaking, the Add. 1686 may initially have been two different manuscripts. The surviving folios in the first section up to the folio that bears the Nepal Samvat (N.S.) date and the rest of the manuscript have two different layouts. It is as if the scribe who prepared the first section ended his job on the recto of folio "58" with a date, and another scribe picked up this incomplete manuscript, which may already have been missing some pages, and decided to recycle the manuscript by starting on the blank page of the verso of the folio bearing the date. The pagination on the first section is not necessarily incorrect as Bünemann suggests, but stands for a separate sequence. From this composite manuscript, we also get a glance of pragmatic approaches taken in Buddhist manuscript production in twelfth-century Nepal; Gudrun Bünemann, *Sādhanaśataka and Sādhanaśatapañcāśikā: Two Buddhist Sādhana Collections in Sanskrit Manuscript*, Wiener

(*bhāgaḥ*) of the Gaekwad Oriental Series. The reprint edition of both volumes came out in 1968, the same year as the revised edition of Bhattacharyya's *Indian Buddhist Iconography* (henceforth *IBI*), which was based mainly on the *Sādhnamālā* and the *Niṣpannayogāvalī*. The reprinting of the *Sādhnamālā* in 1968 and the *Niṣpannayogāvalī* in 1970, together with the posthumous publication of the second, revised edition of *IBI*, fueled the authority of the Bhattacharyya's editions in the study of Indian Buddhist iconography.¹⁰ The *Sādhnamālā*, along with the *Niṣpannayogāvalī* of Abhayakaragupta of the Vikramaśīla monastery, an edited version of which was also prepared by Benoytosh Bhattacharyya in the same series, remains the most authoritative reference text for the study of Esoteric Buddhist iconography.¹¹ I suggest that we approach his texts with a more historically critical eye and recognize Bhattacharyya's authorial intention in the edited volumes of the *Sādhnamālā*, where he selectively presents the material to create a systematic text for understanding Esoteric Buddhist iconography, for which Foucher's pioneering study seems to have provided an inspiration and a blueprint. We should also be aware of the limits of his edition from the text-critical point of view. As Bühnemann points out, Bhattacharyya's edition combines two distinctive collections of *sādhana*s into one seamless text, partly because Bhattacharyya was unaware of Tibetan translations of the *sādhana* collections.¹²

The *Sādhnamālā* and the *Prajñāpāramitā* sutra are undoubtedly two different kinds of texts. But their respective places in the religious, especially cultic, milieu of late Indian Buddhism are much nearer than their seeming

Studien zur Tibetologie und Buddhismuskunde (Vienna: Arbeitskreis für Tibetische und Buddhistische Studien, Universität Wien, 1994).

¹⁰ As a son of the prominent learned Sanskrit scholar Mahamahopadhyaya Haraprasad Shastri who made indispensable contributions to the formation of our knowledge about Sanskrit manuscripts and the early history of Bengali language, Benoytosh Bhattacharyya was trained in Sanskrit from an early age and developed immense knowledge of Sanskrit manuscripts and Buddhist practices gained from the texts he studied. In addition, he took Alfred Foucher to be an influential guide in his study of Buddhist iconography as indicated in his preface to the *IBI*, although the two probably met only once, in 1919, when Foucher was in Kolkata giving a lecture at the University of Calcutta, where Bhattacharyya studied Sanskrit.

¹¹ Benoytosh Bhattacharyya, ed., *Niṣpannayogāvalī of Mahāpaṇḍita Abhayākara-gupta*, Gaekwad's Oriental Series 109 (Baroda: Oriental Institute, 1949).

¹² Bühnemann suggests that the manuscript titled "*Sādhnamālātantra*" in Cecil Bendall's catalog (*Catalogue of the Buddhist Sanskrit Manuscripts in the University Library, Cambridge, with Introductory Notices and Illustrations of the Paleography and Chronology of Nepal and Bengal* [Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1883], 1–4), Add. 1686, in which one *sādhana* (*sthi-cakrasādhanaṃ*) bears a date of N.S. 285 in the month of *Pauṣa*, identified as "Ms. B" in Bhattacharyya's edition (1968), is that of the *Sādhanaśatapañcāśikā* (*sGrub thabs brgya dan lha bcu*) and belongs to a different collection of *sādhana*s from the "*Sādhnamālā*" group that includes manuscripts variously titled the *Sādhnamālā* (title from nineteenth-century Sanskrit paper manuscripts from Nepal), the *Sādhanaśamuccaya* (title known from eleventh- to thirteenth-century Sanskrit palm leaf manuscripts) and the *Sādhanaśāgara* (title known from Tibetan translation; *sGrub thabs rgya mtsho*); Bühnemann, *Two Buddhist Sādhana Collections*.

textual distance, especially if we consider the production of painted manuscripts of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra in the context of the medieval Indian Buddhist practice of cult of the book, which clearly suggests repackaging the Prajñāpāramitā sutra in Esoteric Buddhist garb. Their manuscripts were produced contemporaneously, and, as we will see, certain choices made in the ambitious iconographic programs of the two Nepalese AsP manuscripts suggest familiarity and understanding of the vision practices collected in contemporary *sādhana* texts. The pictorial contents of a Prajñāpāramitā manuscript as a ceremonial, ritual object help us unfold the very practices of visions prescribed in the *sādhana* texts. If we approach a manuscript as a sacred object containing text and images, we can see that the Cambridge University Library AsP manuscript (Add. 1643) contains a compilation or *mālā* (garland) of pictorial representations of sacred sites (*ṭīrthas*) and images, just as the *Sādhana-mālā* is a compilation of vision texts. In other words, an illustrated manuscript with such an ambitious iconographic program as seen in the Nepalese illustrated manuscripts can activate the textually prescribed visions on an orchestrated visual and material plane, while simultaneously embodying the local, cultic sites. Moreover, I argue that such a manuscript purposefully contains a transregional, pan-Indic map of the Buddhist universe, reflecting specific historical, cultic, and religious concerns of the makers, patrons, and the prospective users of the manuscript. The vision texts that the two great savants of Indian Buddhist iconography intuitively brought together to illustrate the expansive pantheon of late Indian Buddhism can once again be made meaningful for a more historically grounded understanding of Buddhist vision practices and their relationship to the artistic outputs.

STRATEGIES OF EMPOWERMENT: FROM LOCAL TO TRANSREGIONAL

Foucher's 1900 study examined two Nepalese illustrated manuscripts of the Perfection of Wisdom sutra in eight thousand verses (*Aṣṭasāhasrikā Prajñāpāramitā*, henceforth AsP), one in the Cambridge University Library (Add. 1643), and the other in the Asiatic Society, Kolkata. The Cambridge manuscript bears the date 1015 CE (N.S. 135), which makes it the earliest surviving Nepalese manuscript of its kind, and the Asiatic Society manuscript was prepared about two generations later, in 1071 CE (N.S. 191). One of the unique features of these two manuscripts is that many paintings are accompanied by captions that identify the images, the edifices, and their physical locations, as seen in an image of standing Tārā on folio 169r of the Cambridge manuscript that is identified by the caption as "Tārā in Tārāpura in the Laṭa country (southern Gujarat)" (fig. 2).¹³

¹³ The caption reads "*lāṭadese [sic]-tārāpure-tārā*."



FIG. 2.— Tārā in Tārāpura in the Laṭa country (southern Gujarat), fol. 169r, AsP ms., 1015 CE (N.S. 135), Cambridge University Library, Add. 1643. Image reproduced by kind permission of the Syndics of Cambridge University Library.

The Cambridge manuscript (Add. 1643) was initially prepared by Sujāta-bhadra at a monastery named Śrī Hlam in Nepal during the joint rule of Bhojadeva, Rudradeva, and Lakṣmīkāmadeva in 1015 CE (N.S. 135).¹⁴ A second colophon adds that it had fallen into the hands of nonbelievers, when one Karuṇāpūrva Vajra saved the manuscript with piety in 1139 CE (N.S. 259 CE) during the reign of Mānadeva.¹⁵ It has eighty-five illustrated panels strewn throughout the manuscript. The illustrated panels are placed at the beginning and the end of each chapter, two panels per illustrated folio, except for a few exceptions where three panels appear per folio and, in one instance, five panels (see table A1 in the appendix). A number of extra illustrated folios are inserted within the first chapter (at least five) and within chapter 31 (at least four), as though adding weight—if not physical, then perhaps visual—to either end of the book. In this manner, the illustrated panels collectively provide a skeletal frame structure to hold the sea of text together in a systematic manner in one's perception, while intensifying the book's sacredness.¹⁶ The Cambridge manuscript includes famous images and powerful pilgrimage sites that charge the

¹⁴ The monastery cannot be located with certainty, but it must have been a big center for manuscript production during this time as the colophon describes it to be the ocean of new *śāstras* (scripture, possibly referring to commentarial literature) and a place where the teaching of the Buddha perpetually shines. It reads, “śrīhlamvihāra iti sarvajānanurāgo yasmin vibhāti vacanaṃ sugatasya śaśvat tasmin vihāre nayaśāstrasāgare” (AsP, Cambridge University Library Add. 1643, folio 222v).

¹⁵ Bendall (*Catalogue*, xxii) suggests that “infidels” (*śradhāhīnajana*) might refer to Muslims. Foucher questions this assumption because incursion of Islamic force in the Kathmandu valley before 1139 CE (the date of the second colophon) is difficult to ascertain. Instead, he suggests that the manuscript might have fallen in the hands of those who did not care for the book, possibly some hostile Nepalese Brahmins; Foucher, *Étude sur l'iconographie bouddhique de l'Inde*, 1: 19–20.

¹⁶ For the discussion of the function and the meaning of illustrations in the context of the Buddhist book cult in medieval South Asia, see Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred*.

book with cultic potency in a very concrete manner. Each illustrated panel in the Cambridge manuscript has different structural and iconographic elements that convey a sense of geographic and cultic specificity in their representations, which work in tandem with the captions to embed the manuscript with the sacred geography known to the authors of the manuscript.

In figure 2, we see an image of goddess Tārā in green hue in the center of the panel standing with *varada mudrā* (giving gesture) in the right hand and holding a blue lotus in the other. While this is a standard representation of Tārā, the surrounding landscape and distinctive iconographic and compositional elements signal the regional and historical specificity of the depicted site. The geometric patterns of squares and chevron-like bars are used to signify the rocky surroundings, as commonly seen in Nepalese manuscript paintings of the eleventh and twelfth centuries, and four different figures appear inside each cave-like niche. On Tārā's proper right stands a monastic male figure inside a rocky niche, and an image of a seated Buddha holding an *abhaya mudrā* (fear-not gesture) appears diagonally opposite this monk in the top right corner of the panel. Under this Buddha figure, inside a cave-like niche on the proper left of Tārā is a blue, two-armed, wrathful deity who holds a club in her raised right hand and makes a *tarjanī mudrā* (threatening gesture) with a noose in her left hand.¹⁷ The most intriguing and idiosyncratic feature of this panel appears under Tārā's boon-giving right hand. A blue figure riding on a green donkey-like animal reminds us of Śītalā, the goddess of smallpox and fever, who sometimes appears near the feet of the goddess Parṇasabarī in a few surviving sculptures from Bengal.¹⁸ If this figure has any association with Śītalā or Jvarāsura (Hayagrīva, the male consort of Śītalā, a horse-headed god of fever), this may allude to the known cultic efficacy of this particular Tārā in Tārāpur for dealing with epidemics and fever-related diseases. While the connection with the epidemic goddess is tenuous at best, we can still see in this panel that the artist(s) made great efforts to differentiate and contextualize each image, possibly reflecting the desire and need of the donors and the makers of this manuscript.

A panel depicting a thousand-armed Avalokiteśvara on folio 147r also suggests that images of known cultic efficacies may have been intentionally chosen in the iconographic program. In the right panel on fol. 147r, an image of the single-faced Avalokiteśvara with numerous arms surrounding his body like a fireball stand inside a simple yet elegant shrine structure with a white,

¹⁷ This may be Ekajaṭā, who often appears among the retinue of attendants to Tārā.

¹⁸ Miranda Shaw, *Buddhist Goddesses of India* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2006), 196–97; Vincent Lefèvre and Marie-Françoise Boussac, *Chefs-d'oeuvre du delta du Gange: Collections des musées du Bangladesh* (Paris: Réunion des Musées Nationaux, Guimet, Musée Nationale des Arts Asiatiques, 2007), 214–15.



FIG. 3.—Thousand-armed Avalokiteśvara (*sahasrabhujālokanātha*) in Sivapura, Koṅkan, fol. 147r, AsP ms., 1015 CE (N.S. 135), Cambridge University Library, Add. 1643. Image reproduced by kind permission of the Syndics of Cambridge University Library.

sloped double roof supported by two slender, decorated pillars (fig. 3).¹⁹ Two figures, possibly Tārā and Hayagrīva, his usual attendants, sit on either side under the spreading arms. The shrine is set in a mountainous and arborous landscape, indicated by layering of unevenly shaped bars in different colors on either side of the shrine with two trees framing the shrine from above. The caption identifies this image as the thousand-armed Avalokiteśvara (Lokanātha)²⁰ in Śivapur in Koṅkan (roughly the northern part of the Deccan along the western coast).²¹ A thousand-armed Avalokiteśvara, an immensely popular manifestation of Avalokiteśvara in Tibet and East Asia, is not commonly found in surviving Indic archaeological and art historical examples. Given its fame elsewhere, it is not difficult to imagine the cultic efficacy of this most immediate and direct manifestation of the compassionate nature of Avalokiteśvara responding to worldly needs. The distinctive architectural type of his shrine and specific landscape elements that differentiate this painting from any other panel containing images of Avalokiteśvara reflect a concerted effort on the part of the authors of the manuscript to individualize and localize this fantastic form of Avalokiteśvara.²²

¹⁹ A detailed study comparing the architectural types pictorially represented in this manuscript with the development of regional architectural styles identifying specific architectural vocabularies that are creatively adapted in the paintings will help us understand the extent and the manner in which the architectural knowledge in medieval South Asia might have spread across the regional, sectarian, or political boundaries. However, this is clearly beyond the scope of this essay.

²⁰ While the *sādhana* texts compiled in the *Sāadhanamālā* seems to identify the term *lokanātha* as a specific form of Avalokiteśvara if we follow Bhattacharyya's categorization, the Cambridge manuscript uses the term *lokanātha* consistently to refer to all forms of Avalokiteśvara from various localities compiled within it.

²¹ The caption reads “*koṅkane sivapure sahasrabhujālokanāthah.*”

²² Whether there actually existed such an image of thousand-armed Avalokiteśvara in Koṅkan or not is beyond the point. That the makers of the Cambridge manuscript claimed to know of such



FIG. 4.—Tārā of Vaiśālī in Tirabhukti, left panel, fol. 157v, AsP ms., 1015 CE (N.S. 135), Cambridge University Library Add. 1643. Image reproduced by kind permission of the Syndics of Cambridge University Library.

Although identifying every site represented in this manuscript on a topographic map may be impossible with our limited knowledge of ancient names, some sites and images can be identified with surviving archaeological remains. Some images were famous partly because they were located in well-established preexisting *tīrthas*, as in the case of the Tārā image in Vaiśālī on folio 157v (fig. 4). This panel depicts a two-armed standing Tārā with an attendant inside a shrine that has a three-tiered, flat-roofed superstructure with a *stūpa*-shaped finial. Interestingly, next to this shrine appears the scene of a monkey's offering of honey, with the Buddha seated under a tree, as if serving as a visual label/icon for the site of Vaiśālī, where this penultimate event of the Buddha's life happened.²³ The caption identifies the scene as the "Tārā of Vaiśālī in Tirabhukti" (*tirabhuktau vaiśālī tārā*).²⁴ It is not possible to identify this image with any particular image or a shrine structure surviving from the archaeological site of Vaiśālī, but the report of a thirteenth-century Tibetan pilgrim, Dharmasvamin, suggests that there was a famous image of Tārā at the site, which seems to have been a two-armed standing image of Tārā according to his description.²⁵

an image in a "town of Śiva (Śivapura)" in the coastal Deccan area in itself reflects the desire to fix this famous image in a specific locality, in a town named after the Hindu god Śiva. This is not to argue that the sites included in this manuscript are fictional. The makers must have known about a lot of sites and famous images represented in this manuscript and were potentially aware of what some of these sites looked like, perhaps not in the sense of mimetic representations but as idealized types. The scroll painting of the famous images compiled in one object as found in Dunhuang provides earlier evidence for how the pictorial knowledge about important sites and images in the Buddhist world traveled; Alexander Soper, "Representations of Famous Images at Tun-Huang," *Artibus Asiae* 27, no. 4 (1964–65): 349–64.

²³ Joanna Williams, "Sarnāth Gupta Steles of the Buddha's Life," *Ars Orientalis* 10 (1975): 171–92; Janice Leoshko, "Scenes of the Buddha's life in Pala Period Art," *Silk Road Art and Archaeology* 3 (1993–94): 251–76.

²⁴ Tirabhukti, an ancient name for Mithila, is located in the area north of Ganges, near today's Patna in Bihar. The archaeological site of Vaiśālī is located in this area.

²⁵ Dharmasvamin gives a rather specific visual description of the image, which reads "a miraculous stone image of the Arya Tārā with her head and body turned towards the left, foot placed flat,



FIG. 5.—Khaḍgacaitya, in Kṛṣṇagiri (Kanheri), Koṅkan, 214v, AsP ms., 1015 CE (N.S. 135), Cambridge University Library Add. 1643. Image reproduced by kind permission of the Syndics of Cambridge University Library.

Another existing site of fame that appears in this manuscript is Kanheri, a Buddhist cave temple site located in the outskirt of Mumbai. Kanheri was an important Buddhist center from at least the beginning of the Common Era and remained so through the early medieval period.²⁶ Two panels in the Cambridge manuscript represent the site of Kanheri on folio 214v and folio 220v, and both paintings pictorially represent the environment of Kanheri as a rock-cut cave temple site with *caitya* (halls) with stupas inside as central foci of worship. For example, the caption of the right panel on folio 214 reads “Khaḍgacaitya of Kṛṣṇagiri (Kanheri) in Koṅkan.”²⁷ The painting depicts a white stupa inside a rectangular bejeweled frame set in the middle of a rocky mountain, as if representing a stupa (relic mound) inside a wooden structure in front of a cave temple (fig. 5). On either side of the stupa are monks seated inside rectangular openings of the caves. The monk on the left holds a manuscript represented as a long narrow rectangular shape, while the other one sits in homagous. Beneath them, two more monks appear in *añjalī mudrā* looking

and the right foot turned sideways, the right hand in the vara-mudra and the left hand holding the symbol of the three jewels in the front of the heart”; Debala Mitra, *Buddhist Monuments* (Calcutta: Sahitya Samsad, 1971), 74. I believe the image Dharmasvamin saw was a two-armed standing image of Tārā as indicated in his “foot placed flat (*tadāsana*).” I wonder if he means that the image was represented in *tribhanga* posture with slightly bent knee and swayed hip, when he says “the right foot turned sideways.” If so, the represented image in this panel is not too different from Dharmasvamin’s report, especially given that the left hand holding a blue lotus is raised almost to the chest and a schematic rendering of a blue lotus may appear similar to a representation of *triratna* (three jewel).

²⁶ Himanshu Prabha Ray, “Kanheri: The Archaeology of an Early Buddhist Pilgrimage Centre in Western India,” *World Archaeology* 26, no. 1 (1994): 34–46.

²⁷ The caption reads, “*koṅkane kṛṣṇagirau khaḍgacaitya*”; Foucher suggests that “*khaḍga-caitya*” may refer to a *caitya* of a “*pratyekabuddha*,” given that the term *khaḍga* can denote “rhinoceros” and as an analogy may be related to the *pratyekabuddhas* who seek their own enlightenment in solitude. According to Foucher, *pratyekabuddha-sikhara-caitya*, identified in the caption of fol. 220v, and *khaḍgacaitya* may be synonyms and refer to the same monument at Kanheri (Foucher, *Étude sur l’iconographie bouddhique de l’Inde*, 1:56). We will need further epigraphic and archaeological evidence to prove this hypothesis proposed by Foucher now more than a century old.

up the stupa. A stupa housed in a cave temple within a rocky setting comes quite close to what we still have at Kanheri, where there are numerous cave temples, many of which have stupas as the focal point of veneration. While it may not be the firsthand representation of Kanheri, the painting provides a glimpse of how the eleventh-century Nepalese Buddhists and artists understood the site: a monastic site with *caityas* set up in a rocky, mountainous setting. The site of Kanheri was actively in use at least until the ninth century, as an inscription in cave 11 dated 854 CE records a permanent endowment of 100 *drammas* for the construction of the meditation room and clothing for monks by a resident of Gauḍa (Bengal).²⁸ The two paintings depicting Kanheri do not necessarily prove that this site, or any site depicted in this manuscript for that matter, was in active use and worship in the eleventh century, but they do suggest the wide circulation of the fame of these sites and images, as their names in Sanskritized forms and the knowledge of their cultic efficacy traveled to Nepal from faraway regions.

It is difficult to assess whether any of the paintings in this manuscript represents an actual pilgrimage site or not.²⁹ The use of various architectural structures in depicting different sites indicates the desire to locate them in specific regional localities. For example, on folio 89r, the left panel shows a dark blue, single-cell shrine with a *shikhara*-like superstructure, which the caption locates in Gandhāra, while the right panel locates a white shrine structure with a trilobed arch-shaped opening and a bulbous dome and golden finials in the Swat Valley (Oddiyāna).³⁰ We can certainly suggest that the verisimilitude of the representations was not the main concern of the makers and the users of this manuscript. Most paintings represent idealized types rather than what each of the actual sites looked like. Nonetheless, it is important to emphasize

²⁸ Shobhana Gokhale, *Kanheri Inscriptions*, 1st ed. (Pune: Deccan College Post Graduate and Research Institute, 1991), 70. The movement of ordinary people from Gauḍa to central India and beyond is attested in epigraphic records from medieval India. For example, a stone inscription of Dhangadeva that records the construction of the Vishvanatha temple at Khajuraho was renewed by a *kāyastha* from Gauḍa in 1117 CE. This pattern goes in tandem with the idea behind the collection of famous sites from different localities as seen in the Cambridge manuscript.

²⁹ Foucher raised this issue in his 1900 study and contended that at first glance the paintings seem to suggest verisimilitude of the architectures they represent (“nous nous contenterons pour le moment de reconnaître à première vue la vraisemblance générale de ces architectures”). This provisional conclusion is drawn from the comparison between the paintings of the Cambridge manuscript (Add. 1643) and those in the Kolkata manuscript (A.15). Foucher (*Étude sur l'iconographie bouddhique de l'Inde*, 1:43) finds the artists of the two manuscripts to be mainly good copyists incapable of invention: “nos bons enlumineurs, décidément incapables de rien inventer, se sont bornés à copier avec plus ou moins de bonheur, mais toujours avec sincérité, les motifs courants de leur imagerie religieuse traditionnelle.”

³⁰ The differentiation in architectural elements makes them appear regionally distinctive, but only further research on the regional architectural styles of the areas mapped in this manuscript will help us identify whether the paintings represent the regional specificity of architectural styles as they developed in early medieval South Asia. For an image, see Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred*.

that each painting effectively localizes each depicted site as seen in the examples discussed so far.

The ambitious choice of including numerous regional sites and cult images of specific localities can be understood in the context of the pan-Indic phenomenon of regional cult sites becoming transregionally meaningful.³¹ Various lists of the sacred sites (*tīrthas* or *pīthas*) appear in medieval Indian textual sources,³² such as the four great *pīthas*, twenty-four *pīthas* (as in the *Cakrasamvara tantra* or *Hevajra tantra*),³³ fifty-two or forty-two *śaktīpīthas* (as in the *Kubjika tantra*),³⁴ the list of *tīrthas* along with a guide to these sites compiled in the twelfth-century text of the *Kṛtyakalpataru* of Lakṣmīdhāra,³⁵ or the list of *tīrthas* to be visited by a *sādhaka* enumerated in the *Mañjuśrīmūlakalpa*.³⁶ These lists of *tīrthas* and *pīthas* demonstrate the need and desire on the parts of various authors to control the sacred geography with their own religious, political agendas in early medieval South Asia and to locate an ideal, cosmological map in a concrete, lived world of men. Unfortunately, none of these lists matches the list of the sites that are compiled in the Cambridge manuscript. This may be partly because the Cambridge manuscript does include few sites related to *tantrika* activities, while various lists of sacred sites gleaned from medieval Indian textual sources that I collected above relate to tantric traditions. In fact, the Cambridge manuscript may represent a pilgrimage cycle of a local Newari Buddhist tradition,³⁷ which may

³¹ Agehananda Bharati ("Pilgrimage in the Indian Tradition," *History of Religions* 3, no. 1 [1963]: 137) observed some time ago that pilgrimage tradition in medieval India developed due to "the ruralization of (Brahmanic) religion in the Hindu middle ages through its partial absorption into local, non-Brahmanic cults."

³² See, e.g., Dineschandra Sircar, *Studies in the Geography of Ancient and Medieval India*, 2nd ed. (Delhi: Motilal Banarsidass, 1971).

³³ See the discussion in Davidson, *Indian Esoteric Buddhism*, 206–11.

³⁴ Vidya Dehejia, *Yoginī Cult and Temples: A Tantric Tradition* (New Delhi: National Museum, 1986).

³⁵ The book on *tīrtha* is titled *Tīrthavivekanakāṇḍa*. Despite the importance of the pilgrimage (*tīrtha-yatra*) in the *Mahābhārata* and also in the various *purāṇas*, it is only in this twelfth-century text that we find the exclusive explicatory (dharmaśāstric) discourse on *tīrtha*. As noted by Salomon, the discourse on *tīrtha* and ritual practices relating to the pilgrimage in the *Kṛtyakalpataru* is still in its germinating state. Richard Salomon, *The Bridge to the Three Holy Cities = The Sāmānya-praghaṭṭaka of Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa's Tristhaṭīsetu*, 1st ed. (Delhi: Motilal Banarsidass, 1985), xvii–xviii.

³⁶ Glenn Wallis, *Mediating the Power of Buddhas: Ritual in the Mañjuśrīmūlakalpa*, SUNY Series in Buddhist Studies (Albany, NY: SUNY Press, 2002), 147–48.

³⁷ For example, contemporary Newari Buddhist rituals, such as the Prajñāpāramitā pūja at the Kwā Bāha or the Golden Temple, begin with an invocation of Sūrya as witness, followed by a vow (*saṃkalpa vidhi*) of the "great gift" (*mahādāna*); this *vidhi* identifies and lists the sacred places of the Kathmandu valley (in "*nepal maṇḍala*"), which in the case of the Kwā Bahal ritual, ends in the Kwā Bahal (personal interview with Cakra Raj Bajracarya on July 18, 2004). See also Niels Gutschow, *The Nepalese Caitya: 1500 Years of Buddhist Votive Architecture in the Kathmandu Valley*, Lumbini International Research Institute Monograph series (Stuttgart: Axel Menges, 1997), 15.

have developed in response to this larger historical trend of mapping the local sites and making them transregionally meaningful.³⁸ If this is so, the Cambridge manuscript may just mark the moment of the creation of such a list. The ambitious iconographic program of the Cambridge manuscript can be understood as compiling regional sacred sites visually and mapping them onto a single object to create a transregional context in the same manner that the compilation of the lists of *tīrthas* and *pīthas* in the medieval Indic texts contributed to transregional authorial claims.

The pattern of the regional distribution of the sites mapped in the Cambridge manuscript also suggests that the choice of the sites may reflect historical and local concerns about transregional politics. The Cambridge manuscript was prepared ambitiously as a masterpiece of the Śrī Hlam monastery, “where the Buddha’s teaching eternally shines [*yasmin vibhātivacanaṃ sugatasyaśaśvar*] and was the Ocean of New treatises [*nayaśāstrasāgara*],” which may have been a young establishment at the time of the Cambridge manuscript’s production. We do not have any other historical information about the Śrī Hlam monastery, except for a colophon of another AsP manuscript prepared in this same monastery in 1008 CE (N.S. 128).³⁹ If this was indeed a new establishment in the early eleventh century, when transregional activities between the monastic centers in Bihar and Bengal such as Nālandā, Vikramaśīla, and Jaggaddala, and Tibet were extremely active, with many people traveling via the Kathmandu valley,⁴⁰ it is possible that the manuscript

³⁸ By invoking “pilgrimage” and “pilgrimage cycle” in relation to the iconographic program in a manuscript, I do not mean to suggest that actual traveling to these sacred sites is promoted in such a project. When we find a list of places strung together as a set, I want to emphasize the authorial intention of compilation itself as a politically and religiously meaningful historical act. On the one hand, we can locate the compilation in the context of the increased movement of people, for example, between eastern Indian Buddhist sites and the Himalayan kingdoms during the period of *phyidar* (marking the period of second transmission of Buddhism to Tibet). On the other hand, we can consider the religious significance of the concept as a mental journey in yogic and meditative practices.

³⁹ This second manuscript is also in the Cambridge University Library (Add. 866) and is one of the earliest known dated Nepalese manuscripts of the AsP, dated N.S. 128 (1008). While it does not contain polychromic painted panels, the last folio where the text ends has three wheels bearing three different design patterns of lotus petals in a manner similar to three painted panels, with dotted double lines on either side of each *cakra* demarcating the space. The writing hand in this manuscript is remarkably similar to that of the Cambridge University Library manuscript Add. 1643 under discussion, bearing out the claim of the two colophons about the Śrī Hlam monastery as their identical production site. See Cecil Bendall, *Catalogue of the Buddhist Sanskrit Manuscripts in the University Library, Cambridge, with Introductory Notices and Illustrations of the Palaeography and Chronology of Nepal and Bengal* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1883), 1–4; Luciano Petech, *Mediaeval History of Nepal (c. 750–1480)*, Serie orientale Roma 10, pt. 3 (Rome: Istituto italiano per il Medio ed Estremo Oriente, 1958), 35; John K. Locke, *Buddhist Monasteries of Nepal: A Survey of the Bahas and Bahis of the Kathmandu Valley* (Kathmandu: Sahayogi, 1985).

⁴⁰ For example, Tibetan traditions record that Atīśa, a renowned Indian master who traveled to Tibet from the Vikramaśīla monastery in the early eleventh century, stayed in the Kathmandu valley

authors' claim that Śrī Hlam was "the ocean of the new treatises" may be an ambitious analogy to link Śrī Hlam to these prestigious Buddhist seats of learning in eastern India, which ultimately must have contributed to asserting its own authority as a new center for Buddhist teaching in the valley.⁴¹ Given this historical context, in addition to the valley's geographical proximity to eastern India and the eastern Indian region's importance in Buddhist sacred geography, it is not surprising to find a number of sites from eastern India represented in the Cambridge manuscript. They count for at least thirty-two out of seventy-six panels with captions.⁴² That the second dominant group is from Lāḥṭadeśa (Broach region, southern Gujarat, 4) and Koṅkan (Coastal Maharashtra, 6) is intriguing, and I wonder if this choice reflects the awareness of the arrival of the Cālukyas of Kalyāṇi in these two regions in the early eleventh century. The Cālukyas claimed Nepal among their vassal states from the late eleventh century.⁴³ While this does not mean that Cālukyas had any direct political dominance over the Kathmandu valley, the transregional nature of these epigraphic references that specifically link Cālukyas to Nepal are relevant for our purpose. The inclusion of the pilgrimage sites in the Cālukyas territories such as Koṅkan and Lāḥṭadeśa, which came under the control of Kalyāṇi or Western Cālukyas by the beginning of the eleventh century suggests an awareness of the changing contemporary political map of the sacred land related to the movement of the Kalyāṇi Cālukya.⁴⁴ The choice of two sites in South India (*dakṣiṇāpatha*) with one in Kañcī (Kāncipuram) may

for a year in between his journey from India to Tibet; Ronald Davidson, *Tibetan Renaissance: Tantric Buddhism in the Rebirth of Tibetan Culture* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2005).

⁴¹ I thank Matthew Kapstein for this insightful suggestion regarding the potential connection between Śrī Hlam and medieval Indian monastic centers.

⁴² Ancient names of many different regions of eastern India appear throughout this manuscript: Magadha (Uttar Pradesh and Bihar: 3), Varendra (Bihar and West Bengal: 6), Samatāṭa (Southeastern Bengal: 2), Rāḍha (Western Bengal: 6), Oḍradeśa (Odisha: 3), Tirabhukti (Tirhut district, Bihar: 2) and others (Varddhamaṇa, Yanavyūha, Candradvīpa, Suvarṇapūra, Daṇḍabhuktau, Nalendrā, Koḍgomaṇḍala, Pattikera, Harikelladeśa and Puṇḍavarddhana: 1 each).

⁴³ For example, as noted by Lévi and others, Nepal is customarily included among the Cālukya vassal states in twelfth-century Cālukya inscriptions; Sylvain Lévi, *Le Nepal: Étude historique d'un Royaume hindou*, 3 vols., Annales du Musée Guimet: Bibliothèque d'études (Paris: Leroux, 1905), 2:203–5.

⁴⁴ The direct governance of the Cālukya in the regions during the early eleventh century is not established beyond epigraphic claims. The Koṅkan seaports seem to have been under the control of the local Kadamba rulers. Epigraphic records like the one issued during the reign of Vikramāditya VI in the early twelfth century (1125 CE) suggest that Cālukya kings made pilgrimage to the *tīrthas* along the Gujjara-Lāṭa-Koṅkan coast. Ranabir Chakravarti, "Nakhudas and Navitakas: Ship-Owners Merchants in the West Coast of India (c. AD 1000–1500)," *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 43, no. 1 (2000): 42–43. Constantly battling against Cōḷas, Cālukyas developed a political rhetoric that showed keen interests in transregional politics. In the inscription dated śaka 1084 (1162–63 CE), Someśvara III (ca. 1126–38 CE) is celebrated as the glorious king whose lotus-like feet were placed upon the "heads of the kings of Andhra, Draviḷa, Magadha, and Nepāla"; J. F. Fleet, "Old Canarese and Sanskrit Inscriptions relating to the Chieftains of the Sindavamaśa," *Journal of the Bombay Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 11, no. 31 (1875): 268. Imperial inscriptions like this one—and there are more than a few of this kind—

also suggest an awareness of the contemporary political movement, this time, of the Cōḷas, if we group them together with three sites located in Sri Lanka (*siṃhaladvīpa*), one in Java (*yavadvīpa*), and another in Kedah (*kaṭāhadvīpa*) on the modern Malay peninsula, all of which had experienced Cōḷa expansionism in the early eleventh century. Given that the recorded date of Rajendra I Cōḷa's campaign over Kedah, 1025 CE,⁴⁵ is ten years later than the Cambridge manuscript's initial completion date, it is difficult to make a direct connection between the manuscript makers' choice and the political movement of the Cōḷas. On the other hand, we may take the evidence from this manuscript to suggest that the Cōḷas expanded their territory outside their immediate political centers in South India following existing trade routes and well-established transregional Buddhist networks. At least five sites can be located in the northwestern part of the South Asian subcontinent with two in Oḍḍiyana (Swat Valley),⁴⁶ one each in Gandhāra *maṇḍala* (Pakistan), Puruṣapura (Peshawar, Pakistan) and Kambojadesā (northwestern Afghanistan). It also includes three images from China (*mahācina*).⁴⁷ Inclusion of these sites far from the makers' physical location in Nepal suggests the transregional and perhaps transcendental nature of these regional *īrthas*. It also suggests an authorial ambition on the part of Nepalese makers and patrons to control and personalize this vast space.⁴⁸ Interestingly, we do not find any Buddhist site in Kashmir and western Himalayan regions, some of which were contemporaneously developed (e.g., Tabo and Alchi).⁴⁹ Their exclusion perhaps supports the hypothesis that the selection of the sites and the images was predicated by their established cultic fame and by their political importance for the patrons and the makers in the Kathmandu valley.

suggest that almost fictional political claims of transregional nature were in vogue in the political rhetoric of medieval South Asia.

⁴⁵ Daud Ali, "Royal Eulogy as World History: Rethinking Copper-Plate Inscriptions in Cola India," in *Querying the Medieval: Texts and the History of Practices in South Asia* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000), 201.

⁴⁶ "*otṭyāne maṅgakoṣṭha-vajrapāṇi*" on fol. 89r, and "*otṭyāna-mārīcī*" on fol. 200v.

⁴⁷ The term *mahācina* in early medieval Indic epigraphic sources refers to China, but from time to time in slightly later material we also see it used to denote Tibet. In this manuscript, it seems clear that *mahācina* refers to China given that the images identified to be located in *mahācina* include Mañjuḥoṣa (fol. 202v), whose iconography refers to Mañjuśrī of Mt. Wutai. A panel on folio 127r depicting Samantabhadra (*mahācīnesamantabhadra*) shows him riding an elephant, a popular iconographic feature of Samantabhadra in China. Another panel on folio 123v depicts an interesting iconography with an intriguing caption, "*mahācīne buddharupaka-lokanātha*," Avalokiteśvara in the form or in the appearance of the Buddha in China.

⁴⁸ I have not come across any list of pilgrimage sites that includes all the sites selected in this manuscript. It is still possible that we may come across a liturgical text that enumerates all of them as part of a ritual practice.

⁴⁹ Deborah E. Klimburg-Salter and Christian Lucanits, *Tabo: A Lamp for the Kingdom: Early-Indo-Tibetan Buddhist Art in the Western Himalaya* (New York: Thames & Hudson, 1998); Christian Lucanits, *Buddhist Sculpture in Clay: Early Western Himalayan Art, Late 10th to Early 13th Centuries* (Chicago: Serindia, 2004).



FIG. 6.—Candragomī's Lokanātha in Nālandā (*śrīnālendrayām candragomiṇalokanāthaḥ*), right panel, fol. 157v, AsP ms., 1015 CE (N.S. 135), Cambridge University Library Add. 1643. Image reproduced by kind permission of the Syndics of Cambridge University Library.

STRATEGIES FOR TRANSFORMATION: FROM PERSONAL TO TRANSCENDENTAL

While the association with specific local sites often determines the cultic efficacy of most images, some images in the Cambridge manuscript were associated with certain historical figures. One good example is an image of Avalokiteśvara at Nālandā on folio 157v, whose caption, “*śrīnālendrayām candragomiṇalokanāthaḥ*,” suggests the image’s association with a well-known lay Buddhist master, Candragomī, and his career at Nālandā (fig. 6). According to Tāranātha’s account, Candragomī was blessed by Avalokiteśvara and used to sit in the temple of Avalokiteśvara to pray before his debate with another Nālandā master, Candrakīrti.⁵⁰ While we need to approach Tāranātha’s account of Indian Buddhist masters with great caution, especially since it was written more than five centuries after their time, it is useful to consider a general pattern that we can observe in his text. In particular, his account of Candragomī is filled with references to the practices of vision and the images related to the cultic power of Avalokiteśvara and Tārā, reflecting Candragomī’s status as a lay Buddhist master. A stone image of Avalokiteśvara used to preach to Candragomī every night before the debate at Nālandā with Candrakīrti. Candragomī is also supposed to have been an incarnation of a *paṇḍita* who had a vision of Avalokiteśvara. As a lay Buddhist master, Candragomī is credited to have built a shrine of Siṃhanāda Avalokiteśvara to deal with leprosy in the Siṃhala island, and he is said to have installed stone images of Avalokiteśvara and Tārā on Candradvīpa.⁵¹ There is also an incident of a

⁵⁰ Jo-nañ-pa Tāranātha, “History of Buddhism in India,” ed. Debiprasad Chattopadhyaya (Simla: Indian Institute of Advanced Study, 1970), 205.

⁵¹ The Cambridge manuscript includes other panels depicting the deities related to Candragomī. For example, the left panel on fol. 80v is identified as Tārā on Candradvīpa (*candradvīpe*

moving image: Tāranātha reports that Candragomī arrived at Nālandā attending to an image of Mañjuśrī that turned its head to listen to Candragomī's *stuti*. The most miraculous among all the stories in Tāranātha's account is that of a picture of Tārā drawn on the wall coming alive to give away all the ornaments to help old woman who came to Candragomī and begged for help.⁵² While the stories suggest possible idiosyncrasies in the iconography of Candragomī's bodhisattva images, as they are almost always caught in the middle of action, the painting in the Cambridge manuscript depicts Avalokiteśvara in more or less standard iconography. He is seated showing the *varada mudrā* (boon-giving gesture) in one hand and a lotus in the other. Next to his boon-giving right hand sits green Tārā. On his left side sits a blue male figure displaying the *vandana mudrā* (greeting gesture) with his right hand raised up above his head.⁵³ The bodhisattva sits under a shrine structure with a three-tiered flat roof structure. One noticeable feature is the presence of two white stupas on top of the field in the background, and this may be an interesting reference to an existing image at Nālandā.⁵⁴ However, whether this painting mimetically represents an image that existed at Nālandā or not is of no concern. I would rather like to underscore that the image's inclusion in this manuscript most likely originated from its association with a historical figure, a famous lay Buddhist master of Nālandā.

Although relatively few in number in the Cambridge manuscript,⁵⁵ the images associated with historical figures form an important category that can

bhagavatī tārā) and the right panel on fol. 86r has an image depicting Avalokiteśvara of a healing house (*ārogyaśāla*) in Sīṃhaladvīpa (*siṃhaladvīpe āroga- [sic] śālā-lokanātha*).

⁵² Tāranātha, "Tāranātha's History of Buddhism in India," 199–209.

⁵³ Interestingly, this figure is different from any other known attendants of Avalokiteśvara. Although his gesture makes him look similar to Hayagrīva, Hayagrīva typically appears in red. Given its unique characteristics, I wonder if a blue male figure with ornaments and long knotted hair is intended to make a visual reference to Candragomī, possibly representing this charismatic lay master pictorially: he greets Avalokiteśvara, while raising the left hand in the gesture of argument.

⁵⁴ For example, there survives a stele of seated Avalokiteśvara in the Nālandā ASI site museum. This damaged stele currently installed right outside the museum's main building shows two stupas floating on either side of the bodhisattva's shoulder.

⁵⁵ Another example identifies a panel on fol. 147r as lord Vāli-Avalokiteśvara (*bhaṭṭārakavāliyalokanātha*). A very distinctive iconography on this panel depicts a two-storied shrine with Avalokiteśvara on the first floor and Amitābha on the second floor in the middle of the panel. On either side of this shrine are six small rectangular panels set in a gridlike manner with Avalokiteśvara's usual attendants occupying each seat. While the peculiarity of the iconographic composition points to a connection to a specific time and a person, it is difficult to determine whether *bhaṭṭārakavāliya* is in fact a reference to a historical person. One more example with a personal name attached to an image appears on fol. 193r, where the caption identifies the image as Jayatuṅga's Avalokiteśvara in Samatāṭa (Southeastern Bengal). It reads, "*samatate jayatuṅgalokanāthaḥ*." Jayatuṅga can be a personal name, and the same name appears in a medieval text like Kalhāna's *Rājatarāṅgiṇī*. It will need further research on local narratives both in Nepal and in Bengal to locate a story that may tell us about this particular image's historical origin. Tibetan sources may also yield a story that explains the name.

help us understand the process of the proliferation of many forms of Buddhist divinities as driven in part by the personal and individual experiences with the chosen deities. Many ritual texts or *sādhana*s compiled in the *Sāadhanamālā* identify their authors as powerful spiritual masters and teachers.⁵⁶ Some authors of the *sādhana*s are well-known scholars of Indian Buddhism, such as Abhayākara Gupta of Vikramaśīla monastery (no. 295), Advaya Vajra (Avalokiteśvara, nos. 17, 217, 251), and Ratnākara Śānti (no. 110), while others are well-known Mahāsiddhas, such as Kukkuripa (no. 240), Śabara (nos. 185, 235), and Ḍombi-Heruka (*no. 228). Although Candragomī's name does not appear in the *Sāadhanamālā*, he is known to be an author of a *Simhanāda-sādhana* in the Tibetan tradition.⁵⁷ In comparison with the early twelfth-century compilation of the *Sāadhanamālā* that collects numerous visions of Esoteric Buddhist masters, reflecting the development of the *Mahāyoga* and the *yoginī tantras*, the Cambridge manuscript's collection of images remains predominantly cultic Mahāyāna,⁵⁸ with the majority of the images drawn from regional *tīrthas* all over the South Asian Buddhist world. Only a few images of its eighty-five panels belong to the Esoteric Buddhist tradition. Despite their obvious differences in historical and religious characteristics, the *Sāadhanamālā* as a collection of vision texts and the Cambridge manuscript as a container of famous images and cultic sites share many common elements. Identifying their common characteristics as visual texts can help us understand the general pattern of iconographic proliferation and development in medieval South Asia.

The most obvious difference between the two is the nature of their respective texts: the Cambridge manuscript is of the Perfection of Wisdom sutra (AsP), an age-old Mahāyāna philosophical treatise,⁵⁹ whereas the *Sāadhanamālā* is a collection of instructions for the *ahamkāra* practices, one of the defining characteristics of Esoteric Buddhism. Yet if we look at the structure of each *sādhana* text, we find the invocation of “*śūnyatā*,” the core concept expounded in the AsP. Preparing oneself to identify with this “emptiness” is one of the essential steps before a practitioner starts identifying oneself with the chosen

⁵⁶ Bhattacharyya lists forty-seven names of the authors mentioned in the end colophons, which does not include the names mentioned within the *sādhana* texts. See Bhattacharyya, *Sāadhanamālā*, 2:lxix–cxxii. As Bhattacharyya notes, it is difficult to ascertain the dates of many authors mentioned in the SM. With many recent studies on Tibetan Buddhist masters and practices and on Indian Esoteric Buddhism, we may be able to better understand the social and historical context in which these authors composed the *sādhana*s and to discuss sociocultural significance of Esoteric Buddhist iconography.

⁵⁷ Tāranātha, “History of Buddhism in India,” 202; Bstan-'gyur (rG lxxi.24 lxxviii.165).

⁵⁸ Avalokiteśvara (or “Lokanātha” according to this manuscript's terminology) is the most frequently cited figure in this manuscript. He appears at least thirty times.

⁵⁹ Edward Conze, *The Prajñāparamita Literature*, Indo-Iranian Monograph (The Hague: Mouton, 1960).

deity, the reality of which is ultimately “*śūnyatā*.”⁶⁰ The Prajñāpāramitā sutra provided the most important doctrinal basis for the esoteric Buddhist traditions and remained the two great pillars of Indian Esoteric Buddhism along with the *Guhyasāmaja tantra*.⁶¹ We also need to remember that the AsP is not only a fundamental Mahāyāna sutra but also the book of the Buddhist book cult in which a manuscript is not only a text but also an object of worship.⁶² It is this cultic aspect of the book and the repackaging of this early Mahāyāna sutra’s importance in the burgeoning Esoteric Buddhist context that transpired the production of illustrated manuscripts like the Cambridge manuscript in the first place.⁶³ The AsP explains that “a son or daughter of good family, (who) has written down this *Perfection of Wisdom*, made a copy of it; he would then put it up, and would honour, revere, worship, and adore it with heavenly flowers, incense, perfumes, wreaths, unguents, aromatic powders, strips of cloth, parasols, banners, bells flags, with rows of lamps all around, and with manifold kinds of worship” begets a greater merit than a person who makes and worships stupas containing corporeal relics (*śarīrāṇi*) of the Tathāgatas in the same manner.⁶⁴ While the ritual activities surrounding a book described in the AsP text are the simplest kind, by the eleventh century, we find a more elaborate ritual scene of a *pustaka pūjā*, involving a ritual master who is often shown with a *vajra* and a *ghaṇṭa*, wearing tall headdress, as seen in the bottom panel of an eleventh-century stone image of Goddess Prajñāpāramitā now in the Orissa State Museum (fig. 7). This ritual master (potentially a *vajrācārya*) shown in the same gesture as Vajrasattva, the preceptor of *pañcatathāgatas* (five transcendental Buddhas), embodies the ultimate goal of the visual practices collected in the *Sādhnamālā*.⁶⁵ Meditating on the book of the Praj-

⁶⁰ Bhattacharyya, *Sādhnamālā*, 2:cxviii–cxix. For example, a phrase like “om śūnyatājñānavajrasvabhāvātmaṁ ‘hamitī’” (from the *Vajravārāṇīsādhnam*, *Sādhnamālā* [hereafter *SM*] 217) is a standard formula that appears in a number of *sādhana*s collected in the *Sādhnamālā*. This invocation does not necessarily appear in every single *sādhana*, but variations of this phrase appear in the majority of the *sādhana* texts.

⁶¹ This is a view expressed in Tāranātha’s “History of Buddhism in India” and may reflect Tāranātha’s own sectarian understanding of the tradition.

⁶² Gregory Schopen, “The Phrase ‘*sa prthivīpradeśaś caityabhūto bhavet*’ in the *Vajracchedikā*: Notes on the Cult of the Book in Mahāyāna,” *Indo-Iranian Journal* 17, nos. 3–4 (1975): 147–81, and “The Book as a Sacred Object in Private homes in Early or Medieval India,” in *Medieval and Early Modern Devotional Objects in Global Perspective: Translations of the Sacred*, ed. Elizabeth Robertson and Jennifer Jahner (Hampshire: Palgrave Macmillan, 2010), 37–60.

⁶³ For the discussion of the relationship between the historical development of the Buddhist book cult and the production of illustrated manuscripts, see Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred*.

⁶⁴ Edward Conze, *The Perfection of Wisdom in Eight Thousand Lines and Its Verse Summary* (Bollinas, CA: Four Seasons, 1973), 105; P. L. Vaidya, ed., *Astasahasrikā Prajñāpāramitā: With Haribhadra’s Commentary Called Aloka*, Buddhist Sanskrit texts (Darbhanga: Mithila Institute of Post-graduate Studies and Research in Sanskrit Learning, 1960), 28–29.

⁶⁵ Claudine Bautze-Picron, “Between Men and Gods: Small Motifs in the Buddhist Art of Eastern India, an Interpretation,” in *Function and Meaning in Buddhist Art: Proceedings of a Seminar*



FIG. 7.— Scene depicting a *pustaka pūjā* (worship of a book), donors on the left and a priest on the right, detail of the Prajñāpāramitā stele, Mangalpur, Orissa, ca. eleventh century. Orissa State Museum. Photo by author.

ñāpāramitā sūtra,⁶⁶ and offering a ritual for the lay devotees on the other side of the pedestal, this ritual master channels the devotional activities of the human world to the divine world above, from the book of the Prajñāpāramitā sūtra into the form of the goddess Prajñāpāramitā. Such representations of a ritual involving the worship of a book with a vajracārya are found on Buddhist sculptures of the tenth through twelfth centuries from Bihar, Bengal, and Orissa.⁶⁷ Along with the contemporaneous explosion of the production of illus-

Held at Leiden University, 21–24 October 1991, ed. K. R. van Kooij and H. van der Veere, *Gonda Indological Studies* (Groningen: Egbert Forsten, 1995), 59–79.

⁶⁶ The book is represented in the middle of the register as a long rectangular object placed on a pedestal suggesting the *pothi* format of the medieval South Asian manuscripts. For the discussion of the format of ancient and medieval books in India, see J. P. Losty, *The Art of the Book in India* (London: British Library, 1982), 5–17.

⁶⁷ Bautze-Picron, “Between Men and Gods”; this ritual scene is not limited to the steles depicting the goddess Prajñāpāramitā. They appear on images of the Buddha and the goddess Tārā, and in a rare case, on a stele of the Hindu goddess Pārvatī.

trated Buddhist manuscripts in Bihar and Bengal, these representations help locate the importance of the Buddhist book, especially the book of the Prajñāpāramitā sūtra, as a ceremonial and ritual object that can confer doctrinal and cultic authority in the context of Esoteric Buddhist rituals centered on the visualization of and identification with a chosen deity as described in the *sādhana* texts.

Each *sādhana* in the *Sāadhanamālā* as a vision text first verbalizes the process in which a deity comes to take a form. In most *sādhana*s, this is the basic step of the practice prescribed, and even the shortest *sādhana*s describes what the deity that the practitioner is transforming himself into looks like. It is through such a concrete vision that a human practitioner is able to access and aspire to become one with the divine. Once this form is born through the descriptive language, the practitioner is to identify with the deity through various techniques including reciting the deity's seed syllables and mantras. The sound of the text (*mantra*) comprises the body of the deity emerging in the physical body of a practitioner in the precise form just identified in the text. The text is the image in each *sādhana*. If we consider each *sādhana* as a vision text, the *Sāadhanamālā* is a garland of vision texts just as the painted panels depicting famous images and sacred sites in the Cambridge manuscript are threaded together through a cord (*sūtram*) of a text, metaphorically and visually speaking. Painted panels measuring 2 1/2 by 2 inches appearing in the midst of six lines of text, each of which runs from left to right on a long narrow rectangular folio measuring 21 1/2 by 2 inches appear to be strung together by the lines of the text. As a *pothi* format book, the folios of the Cambridge manuscript can physically be strung together through a cord, although the original binding material does not survive. The unique design strategy of the Cambridge manuscript—that is, the use of a written label identifying each image—also qualifies it as an early example of the materialization of vision texts that fully utilized the benefits of the introduction of a painted manuscript in the production of Buddhist sacred objects. The neatly written text on the lower left-hand side of the panel depicting a bodhisattva image on folio 157v ensures that the reader understands that it is Candragomī's Avalokiteśvara image in Nālandā (*śrīnalendrāyāmcandragomīṇalokanāthaḥ*) (fig. 6), while the main text of the folio written in a slightly more formal, angular hand narrates the conversation between Ānanda and the Buddha (*bhagavan*) about the role of the goddess Gaṅgā (*gaṅgadevābhaginī*) in planting the seed of the first thought for enlightenment at the time of the Tathāgata Dipaṅkara, which marks the end of chapter 19 of the AsP.⁶⁸ While the beautifully written backdrop of

⁶⁸ Foucher argues that the images in the Cambridge manuscript were added more than a century after the completion of the text in 1015 CE. This argument is largely based on his assumption that the painting style of the Cambridge manuscript should be later than the Kolkata manuscript because

the AsP text provides a body (in the sense of *dharma-sārāra*), to be adorned with visual manifestations of famous *śrīrthas* and powerful images, the labeling text firmly grounds these images in a specific place, not only instructing the artists but also informing the users of the manuscript of the amazing power harnessed in the manuscript through pictorial means.⁶⁹ Here I invoke the concept of “body” with reference to a manuscript as a physical object bearing the sacred text.⁷⁰ Just as ornamentation (*alaṃkāra*) is central to the realization of the body of the divine in medieval Hindu traditions—that is, that of Śiva—a physical book embodying the Buddha’s teaching, the true relic of the Buddha, needs to be deservingly adorned.⁷¹ The idea of adornment is clearly expressed in the text of the AsP in which the Buddha states that the Perfection of Wisdom sutra should be written beautifully “in very distinct letters, in a great book” (*mahāpustake pravyaktaprvyaktairakṣaraiḥ sulikhitām*).⁷² On the other hand, the immediate text-image relationship as practiced in the Cambridge manuscript may well be at the heart of the proliferation of images in Indian Esoteric Buddhist images that ultimately necessitated a compilation of these visions as seen in the compilation of a collection of *sādhana* texts in the early twelfth century as suggested by the *terminus ante quem* date of N.S. 285 (1125 CE) in the manuscript of the “*Sādhana-mālā-tantra*” (or *Sāadhanapañcāśikā*) in the Cambridge University Library (Add. 1686).

We find a meaningful historical relationship between the *Sādhanamālā* and the illustrated manuscripts of the Perfection of Wisdom sutra when we include the illustrated manuscripts of the eleventh and the twelfth centuries that replicate the strategy of book designing seen in the Cambridge manu-

the latter shows more affinity to the “classical” paintings of Ajanta caves in the abstract, smooth modeling of the figures. There is substantial evidence to challenge this linear model of stylistic development. Even if the makers of the Cambridge manuscript mechanically copied an original manuscript that had the paintings with captions as Foucher argues, it still suggests that there existed a manuscript with paintings with captions like those seen in the Cambridge manuscript. The paintings and their captions seem contemporaneous as the ink used to write the caption and the black ink used in paintings show remarkable consistency under a high-power magnifying glass. Certain paleographic features in the captions such as writing of “*srī*” for “*śrī*,” which is equally practiced in the main text, suggest that they are most likely to be contemporaneous, especially in comparison to the paleographic features of the second colophon dated 1139 CE.

⁶⁹ I doubt that these labels were only intended to instruct the artists. They function to authenticate the painted representations’ reference to, and perhaps embodiment of, the powerful *śrīrthas* and famous images.

⁷⁰ The materiality of the text provides an important catalyst in the medieval Indian Buddhist cult of relics as observed by Daniel Boucher (“The Praṭītyasamutpādagāthā and Its Role in the Medieval Cult of the Relics,” *Journal of the International Association of Buddhist Studies* 14, no. 1 [1991]: 1–27). See also Jinah Kim, “Seeing in between the Space: Aura of Writing and the Shape of Artistic Productions in Early Medieval South Asia,” in *History and Material Culture in Asian Religions*, ed. Benjamin Fleming and Richard Mann (London: Routledge, 2014), 39–58.

⁷¹ Vidya Dehejia, *The Body Adorned: Dissolving Boundaries between Sacred and Profane in India’s Art* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2009), 135–38.

⁷² Vaidya, *Astasahasrikā Prajñāpāramitā*, 260.

script. As we noted at the beginning of this essay, Benoytosh Bhattacharyya's editorial rigor created the *Sādhnamālā* based on eight different manuscripts of varying dates bearing at least two variant titles, *Sādhnamālātāntra* and *Sādhanasamuccaya*,⁷³ and of two different recensions of the *sādhana* collections.⁷⁴ While we should not overly rely on the authority of Bhattacharyya's edition, a similar editorial approach to Bhattacharyya's identification of various related manuscripts into a single text can help us understand the historical significance of a group of formally related painted manuscripts of the Prajñāpāramitā sutra that I call here the "Cambridge manuscript kin" in relation to the development of the Esoteric Buddhist art and practices in eleventh- and twelfth-century South Asia. If we take a similar approach to the method in text-critical studies that chart a sequential relationship among surviving manuscripts of a text,⁷⁵ we can identify at least four Prajñāpāramitā manuscripts to be related to the Cambridge manuscript in terms of their iconographic structure and content: (1) the Asiatic Society manuscript (A15) prepared in Nepal during 1071 CE (N.S. 191) mentioned at the beginning of this essay,⁷⁶ (2) the Pañcaviṃśatisāhasrikā-Prajñāpāramitā sutra (Perfection of wisdom in 25,000 verses; henceforth, PvP) manuscript prepared in Southeastern Bengal, probably near the ancient city of Vikramapura in present-day Dhaka district in Bangladesh, during Harivarman's eighth regnal year (1100 CE), part of which is in the Baroda Picture Gallery and Museum,⁷⁷ (3) the PvP manuscript prepared in Southeastern Bengal around the same time as the Baroda manuscript (ca. early twelfth century) parts of which are now dispersed between Chester Beatty Library in Dublin and the Metropolitan

⁷³ Cambridge University Library Add. 1686 is identified as the "*sādhnamālātāntra*." Cambridge University Library Add. 1648 is titled the "*sādhanasamuccaya*." Another manuscript in the Asiatic Society, Kolkata also bears the title "*sādhanasamuccaya*" (G. 10747). Among the specimens collected by Bhattacharyya, these manuscripts are older than the rest.

⁷⁴ Bühnemann, *Two Buddhist Sādhana Collections*.

⁷⁵ See, e.g., Gregory Schopen, "On the Absence of Urtexts and Otiose Ācāryas: Buildings, Books, and Lay Buddhist Ritual at Gilgit," in *Écrire et transmettre en Inde classique*, ed. Gérard Colas; Gerdi Gerschheimer, Études Thématiques (Paris: École française d'Extrême-Orient, 2009), 189–220.

⁷⁶ Foucher, *Étude sur l'iconographie bouddhique de l'Inde*, 1; Pratapaditya Pal and Julia Meech-Pekarik, *Buddhist Book Illuminations* (New York: Ravi Kumar 1988). This is the only manuscript that bears captions next to the painted panels among the manuscript kin group identified here, unlike later Eastern Indian manuscripts. In comparison to the Cambridge manuscript, the Kolkata manuscript includes fewer images, with forty painted panels, at least six of which lack captions. This may reflect the general tendency in Esoteric Buddhist visual practices to shift from locally specific sites and images to transcendental, esoteric Buddhist images in designing a Buddhist book.

⁷⁷ Claudine Bautze-Picron, "Buddhist Painting during the Reign of Harivarmadeva (End of the 11th c.) in Southeast Bangladesh," *Journal of Bengal Art* 4 (1999): 159–97; B. Bhattacharyya, "Twenty Two Buddhist Miniatures from Bengal (11th Century A.D.)," *Bulletin of the Baroda Museum and Picture Gallery* 1 (1944): 17–36.



FIG. 8.—Halāhala Lokeśvara (caption: “halāhala-lokeśvaraḥ”), center panel, fol. 185r, AsP ms., ca. 1071 CE (N.S. 191), Asiatic Society, Kolkata, A.15. Photo by author. Image courtesy of Asiatic Society, Kolkata.

Museum of Art, and (4) the AsP manuscript prepared somewhere in Aṅga or Varendra (eastern Bihar and northern Bengal) now dispersed between the Tibet Museum, Lhasa, and the Metropolitan Museum of Art.⁷⁸ As I have suggested elsewhere, these manuscripts are closely related to the Cambridge manuscript in their use of famous images and sites appearing in that manuscript despite the geographic and temporal distance in their production.⁷⁹ While replicating a number of images from the Cambridge manuscript, the makers of these later manuscripts also introduced new imagery, especially the images of the Esoteric Buddhist deities of the *Mahāyoga* and *yoginī tantras* that we find collected in the *Sādhanaṃālā*, as if the manuscripts of the Perfection of Wisdom sutra provided the most suitable and desirable sacred space for introducing all these visions of Tantric deities pictorially by the twelfth century.

Already in the Asiatic Society manuscript, which holds the closest relation to the Cambridge manuscript being prepared in Nepal only about two generations after the Cambridge manuscript, dated N.S. 191 (1071 CE), we notice the inclusion of more Esoteric forms of popular Buddhist deities. For example, a six-armed, three-faced Avalokiteśvara on the last folio of the Asiatic Society manuscript is identified as “Halāhala lokesvara” in the caption next to it (fig. 8).⁸⁰ Wearing a tiger loincloth and caressing his consort’s right breast, this rare form of Avalokiteśvara clearly appropriates the iconography of the

⁷⁸ John Guy, “Mahavihara Master,” in *Masters of Indian Painting 1100–1650*, ed. Milo C. Beach, Eberhard Fischer, and B. N. Goswamy (Zurich: Artibus Asiae, 2011), 29–40.

⁷⁹ Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred*, 103–9.

⁸⁰ The painting’s iconography is much closer to the one described for “Halāhala Lokeśvara” in the *Sādhanaṃālā*, although not an exact match. The *Sādhanaṃālā* contains three *sādhana*s dedicated to Halāhala-lokeśvara (SM 27, SM 28, SM 29). The minor discrepancy between the pictorial depiction and the textual prescription occurs in the attributes that he holds: a *kapala* bowl with fragrant flowers in his second left hand instead of a white lotus and a snake in his second right hand instead of a rosary. The *triśula* with a snake and a skull bowl with fragrant flowers should appear next to the seated image of Halāhala Lokeśvara according to SM 27. These two attributes also belong to Siṃhanāda Lokeśvara, another emanation of Avalokiteśvara closely linked to Śiva’s iconography.

Hindu god Śiva. Appropriation of Śaiva iconography in fact parallels the characteristics seen in the development of Buddhist Tantric texts where appropriation of various non-Buddhist tantric traditions has been identified as an impulse behind the development of the Mahāyoga and yoginī *tantras*.⁸¹ The later, twelfth-century Indian descendants of the Nepalese manuscript include various forms of highly Esoteric Buddhist deities in addition to the common repertoire of cult images and sites, such as Dancing Avalokiteśvara, Heruka, Mahākāla, and Vajravārāhī, to name but a few. Among the folios in the Chester Beatty Library, for example, an image of a twelve-armed dancing Avalokiteśvara with two attendants, Tārā and Hayagrīva, appears on folio 335r, while the panel on folio 340v depicts Heruka, also dancing on the corpse and holding a *vajra* in his raised right hand and a *kapala* in his left hand along with a *khaṭvāṅga* (ritual staff) (fig. 9, top). Although Avalokiteśvara is a popular Mahāyāna bodhisattva, the dancing Avalokiteśvara as we see in the Chester Beatty example is clearly in line with the active stances of the deities belonging to the Mahāyoga and Yoginī *tantras* like Heruka (fig. 9, bottom). This form may be identified as Padmanarteśvara, who is described in the *Sādhana-mālā*, given that he is holding a full lotus (*padma*) in every hand and dancing (*narteśvara*, lord of dance). This appropriates a well-known iconography of Śiva as Naṭeśa, just as Halāhala Lokeśvara appropriates Śaiva iconography.⁸² The selection of such images in the descendants of the Cambridge manuscript makes them look like a pictorial sampler of the forms described in the *Sādhana-mālā*.

The *Sādhana-mālā* as presented by Benoytosh Bhattacharyya appears systematic in the arrangement of the *sādhana*s, especially in comparison to a seemingly disorderly placement of the painted panels in each of the Cambridge manuscript kin. However, it is important to remember that the systematic structure of the *Sādhana-mālā* is achieved partly thanks to Bhattacharyya's editorial work. As Bhattacharyya notes in his preface to the first volume, the eight manuscripts he consulted for creating the Sanskrit edition of the *Sādhana-mālā* published in the Gaekwad Oriental series are not consistent in the order of the *sādhana*s, and certain *sādhana*s only appear in one manuscript. Both the *Sādhana-mālā* kin texts and the Cam-

⁸¹ Davidson, *Indian Esoteric Buddhism*; Sanderson, "Vajrayāna: Origin and Function," and Alexis Sanderson, "The Śaiva Age—the Rise and Dominance of Śaivism during the Early Medieval Period," in *Genesis and Development of Tantrism*, ed. Shingo Einoo (Tokyo: University of Tokyo, Institute of Oriental Culture, 2009).

⁸² The image differs from the *sādhana* texts since all of them describe the form as eighteen-armed. This unusual form of Avalokiteśvara appears in only a few twelfth-century eastern Indian manuscripts, including a folio (fol. 334v) from a PvP manuscript now in the McGill University library and a folio (fol. 271r) from an AsP manuscript in the British Library (Or. 12461). These two paintings clearly depict Avalokiteśvara dancing graciously with his attendants, but he is shown with only two arms.



FIG. 9.—Dancing Avalokiteśvara, fol. 335r, and Heruka, fol. 340v, PvP (Pañcaviṃśatisāhasrikā-Prajñāpāramitā sutra) ms., ca. early twelfth century, Chester Beatty Library InE 1463. © The Trustees of the Chester Beatty Library, Dublin.

bridge manuscript kin are compilations of the visual texts, and similar types of images are collected in them. In addition, the *Sādhana-mālā* also includes the regional variations of the deities associated with specific localities of cultic importance just as in the iconographic program of the Cambridge manuscript. There are at least two *sādhana*s dedicated to a form of the goddess Mārīcī associated with Oḍḍiyana (commonly identified as the region in the Swat Valley in present-day Pakistan),⁸³ which also appears in the Cambridge manuscript, identified with a caption “oḍḍiyānamārīcī.”⁸⁴ The choice is mostly limited to the visions of the deities associated with Oḍḍiyana, reflecting the Esoteric Buddhist characteristics of the compilation.⁸⁵ The fact that a local vision of a deity is admitted in this collection of the ritual manuals on transcendental practices leading to the transformation of the practitioner mirrors the ambitious plan to embed a manuscript of the Perfection of Wisdom sutra, a fundamental philosophical treaty of Mahāyāna Buddhism, with locally specific and regionally based cult images and *tīrthas*.

Inclusion of *dohās* (mystical hymns) in this Sanskrit text of the *Sādhana-mālā* also points to a similar historical process in which the regional and local visions constituted transregional practices for transcendental goals. As we know from texts like the *Dohakoṣa* (Collection of *dohās*) of Saraha, a well-known Mahāsiddha, and the *Cariyāgīti* (Songs of practice), the *dohā* texts typically bear characteristics of early vernacular languages, such as old Bangla and old Oriya.⁸⁶ While the specific linguistic characteristics of the *dohās* collected in the *Sādhana-mālā* requires further investigation and is clearly beyond the scope of this essay, we can still discern a pattern where the efficacy of the practice involving the most esoteric deities based on the *Mahāyoga* and *Yoginī-tantras*, such as Kurukullā (SM nos. 180, 183, 185), Mahāmāyā (SM nos. 239, 240, 248-Heruka)⁸⁷ and Buddhakapāla (SM no. 254),⁸⁸ is enhanced through insertion of a more localized, personal text like a

⁸³ Davidson, *Indian Esoteric Buddhism*.

⁸⁴ This panel appears on fol. 200v. The Asiatic Society manuscript also has the same image identified with an identical caption on folio 148.

⁸⁵ SM 179 is titled “uḍḍiyānavinirgatakurukullāsādhanaṃ” (the *sādhana* of Kurukullā from Uḍḍiyāna), and we find a form of Vajravārāhī from Oḍḍiyāna in SM 225 with the end colophon that reads “śrī-oḍḍiyānavajrapīṭhavinirgata-ūrdhva-pādavajravārāhīsādhanaṃ samāptam”; Bhattacharyya, *Sādhana-mālā*, 358–61, 438–49.

⁸⁶ See, e.g., the examples at 358–61, 438–39 (ibid.). Sudipta Kaviraj characterizes the use of vernacular languages in the *Cāryapada* poems as reflecting a long tradition of being conscious of popular languages in the historical development of Buddhism in South Asia (“Two Literary Culture Histories in Bengal,” in *Literary Cultures in History*, ed. Sheldon Pollock [Berkeley: University of California Press, 2003], esp. 515). Also see Per Kvaerne, *An Anthology of Buddhist Tantric Songs*, 2nd ed. (Bangkok: Orchid Press, 1986).

⁸⁷ Bhattacharyya, *Sādhana-mālā*, 371, 82–83, 87.

⁸⁸ Ibid., 460, 66, 81.

dohā. Thus, in the *Sitakurukullā-sādhanaṃ* (Ritual means of invoking the goddess, White Kurukullā, SM no. 185), which is attributed to the *siddha* Sabara (*ṣṭīriyam siddhasabarapādanām*), the text ends with a *dohā* attributed to Sabara after relating all the procedures of identifying with the goddess.⁸⁹ It reads, “taṃ kurukullārūpa kariye hyagra / ahaṇisi vīa hante dehyagra | / guru-vaane diḍha kari māṇahu / bhaṇaa savarapā visaḍhā kare hāṇahu||.”⁹⁰ (Having put the form of Kurukullā at the head, he gives the seed [*mantra*] “*hṛīḥ*” foremost, day and night. Having mind fixed in the words of Guru, Śabarapāda [Śabara] speaks, “destroy the dualistic consciousness!”).⁹¹ Inclusion of a *dohā* like this one seems to assert the efficacy of the *sādhana* through the shift in language, invoking not only a sense of slight exoticness in the context of the surrounding Sanskrit text but also familiarity in the tongues of medieval South Asian practitioners. This particular *sādhana* appears only in the Cambridge University Library Manuscript Add. 1686 (folios 92r–94v), which bears the date in the month of Pauṣa of N.S. 285 (1165 CE). On the manuscript page, this *doha* is not marked or differentiated formally, and it runs seamlessly with the rest of the text, unlike the one we see in Bhattacharyya’s edition where he marks the *doha* with a new, indented paragraph and a footnote of “*chāyā*” showing his reconstruction of the *doha* into Sanskrit.⁹² It is not until one reads the text out loud that the shift in language is subtly noticeable in the manuscript. More research is necessary to understand the role of *doha* verses in *sādhana* practices, but the subtly oscillating ways in which the current example ascribed to one of the well-known Indian mahāsiddhas, Sabara, is included in the *sādhana* text tantalizingly suggests how these strategies of empowerment may have originated from lived experiences and practices.

EPILOGUE: TRANSCENDING TIME AND SPACE

Another common aspect between the *Sādhanaṃālā* and the Cambridge manuscript emerges when we locate the illustrated panels of the Cambridge manuscript in the three-dimensional context of a book. Flipping through the folios of this manuscript, one could go from Samatāta in Southeastern Bengal to Sri Lanka (Siṃhaladvīpa) on one folio and then to northwestern part of South

⁸⁹ Ibid.

⁹⁰ It is possible that the language of this *dohā* may be a variety of the eastern Amabhṛaṃśa, but the linguistic characteristics of the eastern Apabhṛaṃśa is not clearly understood; Vit Bubenik, “Prakrits and Apabhṛaṃśa,” in *The Indo-Aryan Languages*, ed. George Cardona and Dhanesh Jain (London: Routledge, 2003), 230.

⁹¹ This is a loose translation of the Sanskrit *chāyā* text of the *dohā* given by Bhattacharyya (*Sādhanaṃālā*, 385–87). I thank Jesse Knuston for his help with translation.

⁹² In the manuscript, the text reads “śatasahasreṇa-mantṛeṇa-vajragarbhābhisambo/dhipadaṃ labhate atropadaśaḥ | yaṃ taṃ kurukulārūpa,” whereas his edited text reads “śatasahasreṇa mantṛeṇa vajragarbhābhisambodhipadaṃ labhate | atropadaśo ‘yaṃ-taṃ kurukulārūpa.”

Asian subcontinent to Gandhara and the Swat Valley (Oḍḍiyana) in the next, and then again to Southeastern Bengal to a location near Dacca (Suvārṇapura), and to Southern Gujarat (Lāṭṭadeśa) in western India (see table A1, fols. 86r–99v). In one set, we move from Peshawar in Pakistan to China (Mahācina), and then in the next set we move back from China to western Bengal (Rāḍha or Rāḍya) (see table A1, fols. 123v–127r). Such drastic turns in directions and wide coverage of areas suggests a mental journey or an imagined pilgrimage to these local *tīrthas*, the disorderly arrangement of which allows the user, or a Buddhist practitioner, to cross spatial boundaries and temporal limits as he flips through the folios and explores the book. Even when the manuscript is put on a pedestal for veneration, as seen in the contemporaneous depictions of a *pustaka pūjā*, a practitioner can meditate on a book as a three-dimensional *maṇḍala* embodying the Buddhist sacred geography at a concrete level.⁹³ Unfolding a maze-like space as if treading a linear *maṇḍala*, jumping from Oḍḍiyāna (Swat Valley) to Suvārṇapura (near Dacca) to Lāṭṭadeśa (Broach, Gujarat), and to Khatāhadvipa (Kedah near Penang, Indonesia) within a few chapters,⁹⁴ he creates a vast Buddhist universe in his mind, truly transcending the limits of time and space through local visions. This ambitious Prajñāpāramitā manuscript of the Śrī Hlam monastery was the most precious sacred object for a devout Buddhist practitioner like Karuṇapurva Vajra who saved the manuscript in 1139 CE, about a century after its initial production, from the hands of nonbelievers with such emotional intensity that he was compelled to put his head down on the floor in front of the book. Opening this manuscript, Karuṇapurva found the Prajñāpāramitā adorned with stunning paintings depicting the *tīrthas* and powerful images, which spectacularly embodied the transformative power that many Esoteric Buddhist practices like those recorded in the *Sādhanaṃālā* sought to generate. Many of the visions collected in the *Sādhanaṃālā* texts and in the Cambridge manuscript kin exemplify the brilliance of some iconographic innovations of medieval Indian Esoteric Buddhism in which concrete, personal, and local visions are systematically harnessed to create the transcendental experience.

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⁹³ For the discussion of meditation on a book, see Kim, *Receptacle of the Sacred*, esp. 118–21.

⁹⁴ Here, I borrow the concept from the *Mañjuśrīmūlakalpa*. Taking the conclusions drawn by Mathew Kapstein regarding the use of *paṭa* in Esoteric Buddhist practices as a starting point, I take the *Mañjuśrīmūlakalpa* to be one of the most useful references for understanding the iconographic programs of illustrated Buddhist manuscripts (ibid.).

APPENDIX

TABLE A1

ICONOGRAPHIC STRUCTURE OF THE CAMBRIDGE MANUSCRIPT (ADD. 1643, DATED 1015 CE)

Folio Number	Left Panel	Center Panel	Right Panel
Fol. 2r		Dipaṅkara in Java (<i>yavadvīpedipaṅkara</i>)	
Fol. 5v		Vajrasattva on Mt. Meru (<i>śumerovajrasattva</i>)	
Fol. 8v		Dipaṅkara in Sri Lanka (<i>sinhaladvīpe dipaṅkara</i>)	
Fol. 11v		Lokaṇātha Mt. Kapota in Magadha (<i>magadhekapotaparvate lokaṇāthah</i>)	
Fol. 13v		Prajñāpāramitā on Vulture Peak (<i>grīdhṛakūṭaparvate prajñāpāramitā</i>)	
Fol. 14r (chap. 1 ends)		Svayambhū–Lokaṇātha, Nepal (<i>nepāle svayambhūlokaṇāthah</i>)	
Fol. 20v (chap. 2 ends)	Rāhukṛta–Abhayapāṇi in Great Ocean (<i>mahāsāmadre rāhukṛta-abhayapāṇi</i>)		Preaching Buddha in Mahasthan (<i>puṇḍavarddhane trīśaraṇa- buddhabhaṭṭārakāḥ</i>)
Fol. 40v (chap. 3 ends)	Macchīvāhni–Lokaṇātha in Magadha (<i>magadhe macchīvāhni-lokaṇāthah</i>)		Maitreya in Tuṣita Heaven (<i>tuṣitabhavane maitreya</i>)
Fol. 44r (chap. 4 ends)	Buddha in Gandhavatī, Kālaśavarapūra (<i>kālaśavarapūre gandhavatī bhagavān</i>)		Buddha in Trayastriṃśa Heaven (<i>trāyastriṃśe bhagavān</i>)

TABLE A1 (CONTINUED)

Folio Number	Left Panel	Center Panel	Right Panel
Fol. 59r (chap. 5 ends)	Vardhamāna Stupa in Tulakṣetra [Vārendra] (<i>tulākṣetra-vardhamāna-stūpaḥ</i>)		Tārā (of forest) in Vārendra (<i>vārendra-vāṇa-icchā-mahattarāvī</i>)
Fol. 74v (chap. 6 ends)	Preaching Buddha in Yānavyūha [Sarnāth?] (<i>yānavyūha-bhagavan</i>)		Tārā in Potala (<i>potalake bhagavī-tārā</i>)
Fol. 80v (chap. 7 ends)	Tārā in Candradvīpa [S.E. Bengal] (<i>candradvīpe bhagavatī-tārā</i>)		Jambhala in Sri Lanka (<i>simhaladvīpe jambalaḥ</i>)
Fol. 86r (chap. 8 ends)	Campitālā-Lokanātha in Samatapa [S.E. Bengal] (<i>campitālā-lokanāthaḥ</i>) <i>samatāpe</i>		Ārogasālā-Lokanātha in Sri Lanka (<i>simhaladvīpe ārogasālā-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 89r (chap. 9 ends)	Lokanātha in Mt. Kuṭa in Gandhara [N.W. Pakistan] (<i>gandhāramāṇḍale kūtaparvate lokanāthaḥ</i>)		Māṅgakoṣṭha-Vajrapāni in Oddiyana [Swat Valley, Pakistan] (<i>ottiyāna-māṅgakoṣṭha-vajrapāni</i>)
Fol. 99v (chap. 10 ends)	Lokanātha in Śrīvijayapura in Suvarṇapūra [S.E. Bengal? or Sumatra?] (<i>suvarṇapūre śrīvijayapure lokanātha</i>)		Tārā in Tārapur, Latādēsa [Broach, S. Gujarat] (<i>lahtadīse tārapure tārā</i>)
Fol. 120c(r [109] (chap. 12 ends)	Lokanātha [South India?] (<i>dakṣiṇāpāthe mūl...?</i>) [<i>lavāsa-lokanāthaḥ</i>]		Lokanātha in Mt. Valavatī in Kāñjāhadvīpa [present-day Kendah near Penang, Indonesia] (<i>kāñjāhadvīpe valavatīparvate lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 120(b)r (chap. 12 ends)	Mūlavāsa-Lokanātha in South India (<i>dakṣiṇāpāthe mūlavāsālokanāthaḥ</i>)	Lokanātha of Mt. Valavatī, Kāñjāhadvīpa [Kedah near Penang, Indonesia] (<i>kāñjāhadvīpe balavatīparvata-lokanātha</i>)	Tārā in Kambojadēsa [Afghanistan] (<i>kambojadēse tārā</i>)

TABLE A1 (CONTINUED)

Folio Number	Left Panel	Center Panel	Right Panel
Fol. 123v (chap. 13 ends)	Śrī Kanakacaitya in Peshawar, in the northern country [Pakistan] (<i>uttarāpathe puruṣapuramaṇḍale śrīkanakacaityaḥ</i>)		Buddharupaka-Lokanātha in Mahācīna [Lokanātha in the form of Buddha in China] (<i>mahācīne buddharupaka-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 127r (chap. 14 ends)	Samantabhadra in China (<i>mahācīne samantabhadraḥ</i>)	Kanyārāma-Lokanātha in Rādha [W. Bengal] (<i>rādyakanyārāma-lokanāthaḥ</i>)	Dharmarājikā-Caitya in Rādha [W. Bengal] (<i>rādyadharmarājikā-caityaḥ</i>)
Fol. 133r (chap. 15 ends)	Rāmājāta-Lokanātha in Rādha [W. Bengal] (<i>rādyarāmājāta-lokanāthaḥ</i>)		Lokanātha of Yajñapiṇḍi in Daṇḍabhukṛī [N. Orissa] (<i>daṇḍabhukṛtau yajñapiṇḍi-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 139r (chap. 16 ends)	Vajrāsana Buddha, Lūtū, Rādha [W. Bengal] (<i>rāḍhalūtū-vajrasanaḥ</i>)		Vattavana-Lokanātha in Rādha [W. Bengal] (<i>rāḍhavattavana-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 147r (chap. 17 ends)	Bhaṭṭāraka-Valiya Lokanātha (<i>bhaṭṭāraka-valiya-lokanāthaḥ</i>)		Thousand-armed Lokanātha in Śivapura, Konkan [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>koṇkane śivapure sahasrabhujā-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 151r (chap. 18 ends)	Lokanātha in Śrī-Khairavana, Konkan [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>candraṭura-koṇkane śrīkhairavane lokanāthaḥ</i>)		Lokanātha in Jaruha, Magadha [Bihar] (<i>magadhe jāruhe pumavā-lokanāthaḥ</i>)
Fol. 157v (chap. 19 ends)	Tara of Vaiśālī, Tirabhukṛī [Mithila, Northern Bihar] (<i>tirabhukṛtau vaiśālī-tarā</i>)		Lokanātha of Candragomin in Nalanda (<i>śrīnalendrayāṃ candragomīna-lokanāthaḥ</i>)

TABLE A1 (CONTINUED)

Folio Number	Left Panel	Center Panel	Right Panel
Fol. 164v (chap. 20 ends)	Vandikoṭo Lokanātha (<i>vandikoṭo-lokanāthah</i>)		Khadiravanī-Tara in Koṅgomaṇḍala (<i>koṅgomaṇḍale khadiravani-tārāḥ</i>)
Fol. 169v (chap. 21 ends)	Alagacchatra-Caitya in Orissa (<i>oḍḍadesē alagacchatra-caityaḥ</i>)		Tarā in Tarapura, Lata [Broach district, S. Gujarat] (<i>tāhtadesē tārapure tārāḥ</i>)
Fol. 174v (chap. 22 ends)	Alagatatani-Tarā in Orissa (<i>oḍḍadesē alagatatani-tārā</i>)		Lokanātha of Tulakṣetra, Varendra (<i>vārendrā-tulākṣetra-lokanāthah</i>)
Fol. 176v (chap. 23 ends)	Cundā in Cundāvarabhuvana in Paṭṭikera [Comila district, Bangladesh] (<i>paṭṭikere cundāvarabhuvane cundā</i>)		Stupa of Mṃgasthāpana, in Varendra (<i>vārendrā-mṃgasthāpana-stūpaḥ</i>)
Fol. 179v (chap. 24 ends)	Kurukulā on Kurukulā Peak, Latadēśa [Broach, S. Gujarat] (<i>tāhtadesē kurukulāśikhare kurukulā</i>)		Vedakoṭo-Lokanātha, Koratra (<i>koratre vedakoṭo-lokanāthah</i>)
Fol. 184r (chap. 25 ends)	Stone Lokanātha in Harikella [N.E. Bangladesh] (<i>harikelladesē śīla-lokanāthah</i>)		Tarā, Varendra (<i>vārendrā-mahattarāyī-tārā</i>)
Fol. 188r (chap. 26 ends)	Lokanātha of Dedapura, Varendra (<i>vārendrā-dedapura-lokanātha</i>)		Cundā in Vunkarānagara, Lata [Broach, S. Gujarat] (<i>tāhtadesē vunkarānagare cundā</i>)
Fol. 193r (chap. 27 ends)	Jayatunga-Lokanātha in Samatata [S.E. Bengal] (<i>samatate jayatunga-lokanātha</i>)		Mahāviśva-Lokanātha in Koṅkan [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>koṅkane mahāviśva-lokanāthah</i>)
Fol. 200v (chap. 28 ends)	Vasudharā in Kancipuram in South India (<i>daḥṣiṇāpathe kancināgare vasudharāḥ</i>)		Oḍḍiyana-Maričī (<i>oṭṭiyana-māričī</i>)
Fol. 202v (chap. 29 ends)	Kurma-Stupa in Orissa (<i>oḍḍadesē kurmmastūpaḥ</i>)		Marijughoṣa in China (<i>mahācīne marijughoṣah</i>)
Fol. 214v (chap. 30 ends)	Vainakā-syama-Caitya, Tirabhukti [Mithila, N. Bihar] (<i>tirabhutau vainakā-syamacaityaḥ</i>)		Khadgacaitya in Kanheri, Koṅkan [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>koṅkane kṣṇagairau khadgacaitya</i>)

TABLE A1 (CONTINUED)

Folio Number	Left Panel	Center Panel	Right Panel
Fol. 216v	Haladi-Lokanātha in Varendra (<i>varendrā-haladī-lokanāthahāḥi</i>)		Candranavihara (by Vulbhukavitarāga) in Supacanagara [location unknown] (<i>supācanagare vulbhukavītarāgakṛta-candranaviharaḥi</i>)
Fol. 218v	Mamṇava-Lokanātha-Caitya in Konkān [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>valivānikāṇa-konkaṇe mamṇava-lokanātha-caityahāḥi</i>)		Śrī-Dhanya caitya in Ambu [location unknown, Andhrapradesh?] (<i>ambuvaiṣṇve śrīśrīdhanyacaityahāḥi</i>)
Fol. 220v	Caitya of Pratyekabuddha peak, Kanheri, Konkān [Coastal Maharashtra] (<i>konkaṇe kṣṇagiraui pratyekabuddha-śikhara-caityahāḥi</i>)		Tāṭha-Tara in Radha [W. Bengal] (<i>rāḍhe tāḥitā-tārāḥi</i>)
Fol. 221r (chap. 31 ends)	Lokanātha in Potalaka (<i>śrīpotalake lokanāthahāḥi</i>)		Bhṛkuṭī-Tara in Potalaka (<i>śrīpotalake bhṛkuṭī-tārāḥi</i>)
Fol. 222r (chap. 32 ends)	Two-armed Marīcī-Caitya (<i>dvibhujamārīcī-caityahāḥi</i>)	Jeweled lotus flower (no caption)	Disease dispelling Bhaiṣajya-bhaṭṭāraka Vajrasana Buddha (<i>ārogasāṭībhaiṣajya-bhaṭṭāraka-vajrasanaḥi</i>)
Fol. 222v (colophon page)	Buddha's birth at Lumbini (no caption)	Descent from the Trayatṛmśa Heaven at Saṃkasya (no caption)	Monkey's offering of honey at Vaiśālī (no caption)
Fol. 223r (colophon continues)	Taming of a mad elephant at Rājagṛha (no caption)	Māravijaya, Enlightenment at Bodhgaya (no caption)	First sermon at Sarnāth (no caption)
			Parinirvāṇa at Kūśinagara (no caption)

Note.—My reading of captions is similar to Foucher's 1900 publication, except for a few examples.